Observability and sensor layout for influence-area load monitoring of continuous girder bridges

Quoc-Bao Nguyen[a], Thai-Son Vu[a,*]

[a] Faculty of Bridge and Road Engineering, Hanoi University of Civil Engineering, 55 Giai Phong, Bach Mai ward, 11618 Ha Noi, Viet Nam

* Corresponding author: Thai-Son Vu. E-mail: sonvt2@huce.edu.vn

E-mail addresses: baonq@huce.edu.vn (Q.-B. Nguyen) and sonvt2@huce.edu.vn (T.-S. Vu)

Abstract

In influence-area weighing the total load is the area under a response record divided by an integral constant, which can vanish on a continuous girder because the influence line changes sign over the piers. To guide channel choice before installation, closed forms give the blind loci of five channel types on prismatic girders; on any girder, strain gauges are blind at every zero of the uniform-load moment and nearly blind in a band that can contain gauges set back from the piers. For position-independent noise, optimal sensors lie at the extremes of the uniform-load response. For a symmetric girder with equal piers, the constant is a linear-fractional (Möbius) function of the pier stiffness. A laboratory test is consistent with the influence-area identity. Public moving-truck records are consistent with its assumptions within 10–27 % for the gauge average but cannot test weight discrimination; on one day they show that vehicle-free noise covariance misleads multi-channel weighting. On an in-service box girder, two static readings leave the constant of the side-span deflection gauge uncertain by a factor of up to 6.6, against 1.5 at mid main span.

Keywords: Structural health monitoring; Sensor placement; Observability; Continuous girder; Bridge weigh-in-motion; Identifiability

1. Introduction

Heavy vehicles above the design envelope shorten the life of highway bridges and, in extreme cases, contribute to collapse (Fan et al., 2015). Knowing the loads that a bridge actually carries is therefore part of risk-informed asset management (Ventura et al., 2024). Pavement weigh-in-motion (WIM) is mature (Jacob et al., 2002; Al-Qadi et al., 2016), but it weighs the

vehicle rather than the load on a particular bridge. Bridge weigh-in-motion (BWIM), introduced by Moses (1979) and reviewed by Yu et al. (2016), fits the measured response to axle loads times influence-line ordinates and has been refined with measured influence lines (OBrien et al., 2006), regularization (OBrien et al., 2009), accuracy improvements (Žnidarič et al., 2018) and the transverse position of the vehicle (Yu et al., 2018). Strain time histories have given axle weights in model tests on simply supported and continuous beams (Hao et al., 2019), and the transverse load distribution coefficient has given vehicle weights on multi-T-girder bridges (Zuo et al., 2019). Moving-force identification recovers axle-load histories (Law et al., 1997; Chan et al., 1999; Law and Zhu, 2000), also on multi-span bridges (Zhu and Law, 2006). These methods aim at axle loads and need several sensors, a structural model or a regularized inversion.

A simpler family estimates only the gross weight from the area under the response. Ojio and Yamada (2002) integrated the strain records of plate-girder stringers and calibrated the result against a truck of known weight; this calibration is called the standard-load method (SLM). It has been used in long-term monitoring (Cardini and DeWolf, 2009) and was accurate to within 5 % on a seven-span slab-on-girder bridge for test trucks with well-estimated speeds (Helmi et al., 2014). Later work used strain areas and integrals (Yang et al., 2021; Zhu et al., 2022; Agüero-Barrantes et al., 2023), shear strain (Lobo Aguilar and Christenson, 2018), sparse sensing that chose gauge number and location on a single-span bridge (Agüero-Barrantes et al., 2021), load-cell reactions (Shi et al., 2025) and an influence-line-free probabilistic index (Yan et al., 2022). One of the present authors, with co-workers, used the integral of mid-span deflection on a simply supported beam (Nguyen et al., 2024).

The identity behind these methods is classical: the area under an influence line equals the response to a uniform unit load, as design codes use for distributed lane loads (Ghali et al., 2017). On continuous girders, however, the influence line changes sign over each interior support, and positive and negative areas partly cancel. Continuous bridges have been weighed from distributed fiber-optic strain (Chaudhary et al., 2025), with lane-specific influence lines (Wu et al., 2020) and from deck strain on long-span box girders (Moghadam et al., 2022, 2023a, 2023b); Deng et al. (2025) replaced the small net area of a multi-span displacement influence line by its absolute area. Sensor placement for BWIM has been posed through an augmented Kalman filter (Zhou et al., 2025). Deflection-based load identification has been posed as a regularized stochastic problem (Zhang et al., 2026). Deflection influence lines have been identified from moving-vehicle records (Wang et al., 2026) and inverted for girder

stiffness (Zhou et al., 2026), and influence lines have been used to estimate the boundary spring stiffness of a suspension-bridge girder (Lin et al., 2023). None of these studies gives closed-form conditions under which the integral of a single channel cannot observe the total load, or says how such conditions shift with uncertain boundary conditions; Zhou et al. (2025) optimized sensor positions numerically.

This paper supplies such criteria. Neither the influence-area identity nor the generalized least-squares (GLS) estimator is new; the contributions lie in the criteria built on them. (i) We derive a closed-form catalog of blind loci for five channel types on prismatic two- and three-span girders, with a strain criterion, the zeros of the uniform-load moment, that also holds for haunched girders, and two indicators that need no reference rigidity. The zero-moment points and moment parameters are classical; the contribution is their reading as blind and near-blind loci of the weighing integral. At mid-span of two equal spans, strain influence lines cancel less than deflection influence lines: the cancellation ratio, the net influence area divided by its positive part, is $R_{\varepsilon}=0.667$ for strain against $R_{w}=0.571$ for deflection. Near a zero of the uniform-load moment the order reverses, and every continuous girder has strain blind points. (ii) We apply extreme-point optimal design (Elfving, 1952) to obtain a placement rule: for position-independent noise, optimal sensors lie at the extremes of the uniform-load response. On one day of public moving-truck records, GLS weights built from vehicle-free noise raised the out-of-sample error above that of the gauge average (20.4 % against 11.9 % of gross weight); these records test the noise model behind the rule rather than weighing performance. (iii) We show that, for a symmetric girder with equal piers, the integral constant depends on pier stiffness through a linear-fractional (Möbius) law. On an in-service box girder, two static readings leave the constant of a side-span deflection gauge uncertain by a factor of 6.6 at a two-standard-deviation tolerance, while at the design pier stiffness a pier tiltmeter would reduce the Cramér–Rao bound on the standard deviation of its logarithm from 0.87 to 0.18.

2. Theory

2.1. Influence-area identity

Consider a linear-elastic structure, unchanged during a crossing, with any distribution $EI(x)$ and any linear-elastic supports. A response channel at a fixed point m is any fixed linear functional of the displacement field measured from the unloaded state (deflection, rotation, fiber strain $\varepsilon=cM/EI$, shear force or reaction), with an influence line $\eta_{m}(x)$ that is zero

outside the loaded path $[0, L_p)$. For a convoy of axle loads P_i at fixed offsets d_i ($d_1 = 0$) crossing quasi-statically, the record is

$$y_m(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} P_i \eta_m(x - d_i). \tag{1}$$

Its integral over the complete crossing is

$$J_m = \int_0^{L_p + d_{max}} y_m \, dx = P_{tot} C_m, \; C_m = \int_0^{L_p} \eta_m(u) \, du = \frac{y_m[q_0)}{q_0}, \tag{2}$$

where d_{max} is the largest axle offset, P_{tot} the total load and $y_m[q_0)$ the response to a uniform load q_0 over the whole path. This is the classical influence-area identity (Ojio and Yamada, 2002; Ghali et al., 2017); the second equality, $C_m = y_m[q_0)/q_0$, needs superposition only. C_m is called the integral constant, or the constant, and a channel is blind where $C_m = 0$. A channel observes the total load where $C_m \neq 0$, a scalar notion narrower than state-space observability. For a strain gauge at distance c_m from the neutral axis of a section of rigidity EI_m at x_m,

$$C_\varepsilon = \frac{c_m M_q(x_m)}{EI_m q_0}. \tag{3}$$

The section enters only as a gain, so a strain channel is blind exactly at the zeros of the uniform-load moment diagram M_q, for any $EI(x)$ and any elastic supports. The beam-property method (BPM) computes C from a structural model and returns the estimate $\hat{P} = J/C$ of P_{tot}; SLM takes the constant from a reference crossing of known weight P_0 and returns $P_t = P_0 J_t / J_0$ (Ojio and Yamada, 2002).

Equation (2) assumes a linear, time-invariant structure, a quasi-static response, axles on the path on which η_m is defined (so each lane has its own constant), a complete crossing and re-zeroing to the unloaded state; Sections 3 and 4 test these assumptions, and Section 6 discusses their limits. The complete crossing matters: truncating the record when the first axle leaves changes the rotation integral by up to 59 % on a two-span example (Supplementary Section S3).

2.2. Closed-form blind loci

For a prismatic span under a uniform load, every channel is determined by the two end moments, written as $\acute{M}=-8M/\left(q_0L^2\right)$, positive for hogging: $\acute{M}_l$ at the left end and $\acute{M}_r$ at the right end. In the instrumented span of a two-span beam and in the side span of a symmetric three-span beam, $\left(\acute{M}_l,\acute{M}_r\right)=\left(0,\mu\right)$, with the classical interior-moment parameter (Ghali et al., 2017)

$$\mu_{2\,span}=\frac{1+\lambda^3/\gamma}{1+\lambda/\gamma},\mu_{3\,span}=\frac{2\left(\gamma+\beta^3\right)}{2\gamma+3\beta}. \tag{4}$$

Here $\lambda=L_2/L_1$ and $\beta=L_{main}/L_{side}$ are the span ratios and γ is EI_2/EI_1 or EI_{main}/EI_{side} (Fig. 1). The deflection constant at $\xi=x_m/L$ is

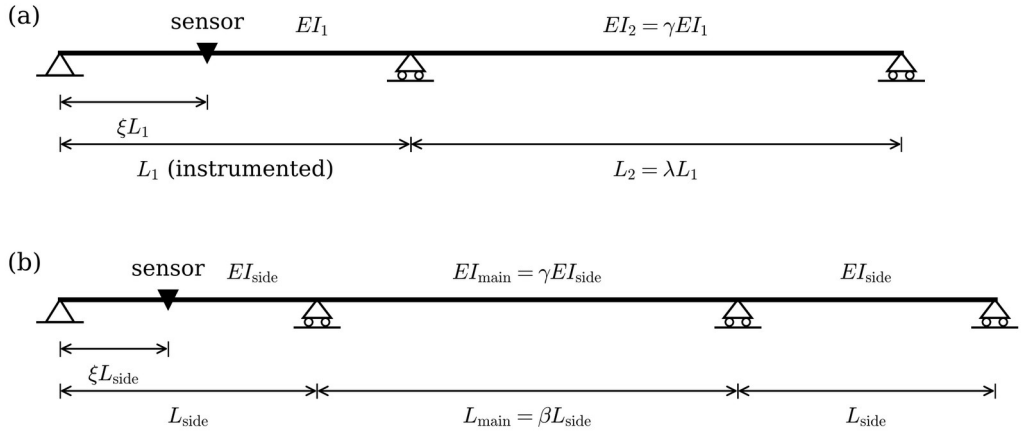


Figure 1. Continuous beams considered: (a) two-span beam with instrumented span L_1 of rigidity EI_1, adjacent span $L_2=\lambda L_1$ of rigidity $EI_2=\gamma EI_1$, and sensor at ξL_1; (b) symmetric three-span beam with side spans L_{side} of rigidity EI_{side}, main span $L_{main}=\beta L_{side}$ of rigidity $EI_{main}=\gamma EI_{side}$, and side-span sensor at ξL_{side}.

$$\frac{192EIC_m}{L^4}=8F\left(\xi,\mu\right),F\left(\xi,\mu\right)=\xi\left(1-2\xi^2+\xi^3\right)-\frac{\mu}{2}\xi\left(1-\xi^2\right). \tag{5}$$

Its left-hand side is the deflection indicator N_w, defined in Eq. (10) of Section 2.3. Setting $F=0$ gives the deflection blind condition, which depends on μ alone:

$$C_m=0\Leftrightarrow\mu=\mu_{crit}\left(\xi\right)=\frac{2\left(1+\xi-\xi^2\right)}{1+\xi}. \tag{6}$$

A deflection blind point therefore exists only for $1<\mu<2$. For a mid-span sensor on two spans of equal rigidity, the blind span ratio and, for equal spans, the optimal sensor position are

$$\lambda_{crit}=\frac{3+\sqrt{33}}{6}=1.4574\,,\xi^{\acute{\iota}}=\frac{1+\sqrt{33}}{16}=0.4215\,. \tag{7}$$

For a mid side-span sensor on a symmetric three-span beam of uniform rigidity, the blind ratio is the positive root of $6\beta^3-15\beta-4=0$,

$$\beta_{crit}=\sqrt{10/3}\cos\left[1/3\arccos\left(2/5\sqrt{6/5}\right)\right]=1.7006\,. \tag{8}$$

The blind locus over all side-span positions ends at $\beta=2\cos(\pi/9)=1.8794$. A channel is called near-blind when its indicator (Section 2.3) is below 0.2 in magnitude; for this gauge the near-blind band is $1.621<\beta<1.775$ (Fig. 2). Derivations and optimal side-span positions are in Supplementary Section S2 and Table S2, and all closed forms agree with finite element (FE) evaluations of Eq. (2) in 981 checks (Supplementary Section S3).

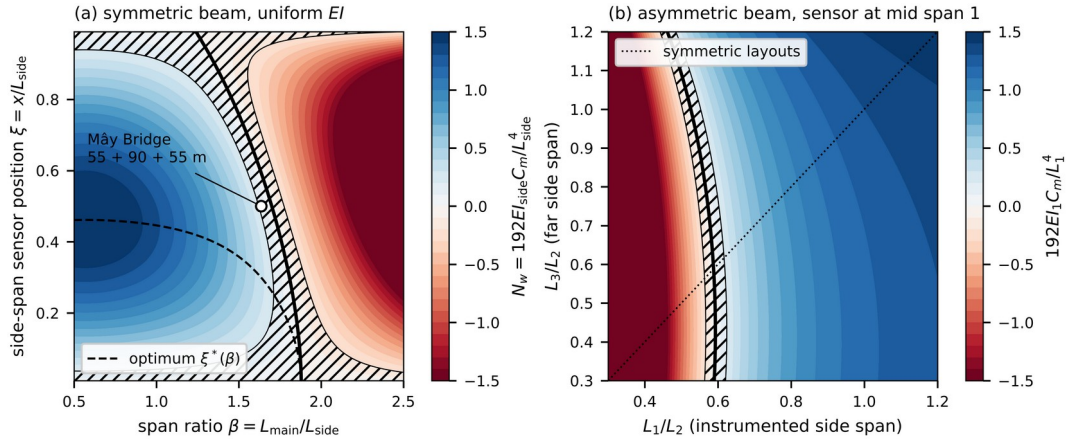


Figure 2. Deflection observability of three-span beams of uniform rigidity: (a) symmetric beam, N_w over β and side-span sensor position ξ, with blind locus (thick line), near-blind band $|N_w|<0.2$ (hatched), optimum $\xi^{\acute{\iota}}(\beta)$ (dashed) and Mây Bridge proportions with a mid side-span sensor (circle); (b) asymmetric beam, sensor at mid-span of span 1, over L_1/L_2 and L_3/L_2.

For strain, with $(\acute{M}_l,\acute{M}_r)=(0,\mu)$, the indicator and the blind point ξ_0 are

$$N_M=\frac{8\,M_q(x_m)}{q_0L^2}=4\,\xi(1-\xi)-\acute{M}_l(1-\xi)-\acute{M}_r\,\xi\,,\xi_0=1-\frac{\mu}{4}\,. \tag{9}$$

Strain blind points exist in every span that has a sagging zone ($\mu<4$), so every continuous girder has them. For two equal spans, $\xi_0=0.75$ and the near-blind band $|N_M|<0.2$ lies 0.19–

0.32 of the span from the interior support: a gauge at the support section is well conditioned ($|N_M)=\mu$), but one set back from the pier to clear the diaphragm can fall into the band. Table 1 collects the blind loci, and Fig. 3 shows the indicators along two prismatic girders. The end-reaction indicator $N_F=2F_A/(q_0 L_1)$, with F_A the end reaction, equals ξ_0 for any $EI(x)$ and pier springs, because $M_q=F_A x-q_0 x^2/2$ in the end segment.

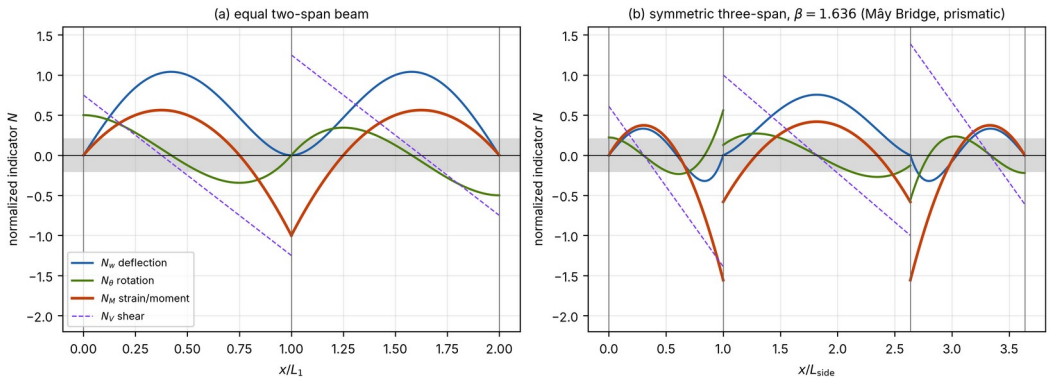


Figure 3. Indicators along prismatic girders: deflection N_w (2.5 at a simply supported mid-span), rotation N_θ, strain N_M and shear N_V (1 for the simply supported reference). (a) Equal two-span beam; (b) symmetric three-span beam, $\beta=1.636$. Gray band: $|N)<0.2$.

Table 1. Blind loci of response channels: positions or span ratios at which the constant C of Eq. (2) vanishes. Prismatic beams with $\gamma=1$ unless stated; μ from Eq. (4); ζ: position in the main span from the pier, as a fraction of the main span.

Channel	Blind where	Two-span beam (span 1)	Symmetric three-span beam
Strain, moment, curvature	zeros of M_q	$\xi_0=1-\mu/4$ (0.75 at $\lambda=1$); band $0.676<\xi<0.812$ at $\lambda=1$	side: $\xi_0=1-\mu/4$; main: $\zeta_0=1/2\left(1-\sqrt{1-\mu/\beta^2}\right)$ from the pier (0.276 at $\beta=1$)
Deflection	zeros of the uniform-load deflection w_q	$\mu=\mu_{crit}(\xi)$, only for $1<\mu<2$; mid-span: $\lambda=1.4574$, band $1.385<\lambda<1.525$	mid side span: $\beta=1.7006$, band $1.621<\beta<1.775$; locus over all side-span positions ends at $\beta=1.8794$
Rotation	extrema of w_q	end: $\mu=2$ ($\lambda=1.6180$); pier: $\lambda=1$ for any γ	end: $\beta=2\cos(\pi/9)$; pier: $\beta=\sqrt{3/2}$ for any γ; mid main span: always
Shear	maxima of M_q	$\xi=\xi_0/2$	side: $\xi_0/2$; mid main span: always
End reaction	no sagging zone in the end span	$\mu=4$ ($\lambda=2.3028$)	$\mu=4$ ($\beta=2.6691$)
Interior reaction	never under a full uniform load	–	–

2.3. Observability and conditioning indicators

Every estimator below divides by C, so to first order the sensitivity to measurement error scales as $1/|C|$. For a deflection channel the normalized indicator is

$$N_w = \frac{192\, E I_{ref}\, C_m}{L^4}, \tag{10}$$

with L the span containing the sensor and $E I_{ref}$ a reference rigidity. N_w equals 2.5 at mid-span of a simply supported span, where N_M equals 1. The rotation and shear indicators (Supplementary Section S3) equal 1 for the simply supported end rotation and end shear. A common threshold of 0.2 is 8 % of the simply supported value for deflection and 20 % for strain; this threshold is a design convention. On a non-prismatic girder N_w also depends on the choice of $E I_{ref}$, which, as Section 5 shows, can dominate the result, whereas N_M, the uniform-load moment relative to $q_0 L^2/8$, needs no reference rigidity. Neither does the cancellation ratio

$$R = \frac{C}{A^{+} = 1 - \frac{|A^{-})}{A^{+}, }} \tag{11}$$

the net influence area divided by its positive part A^{+} (cf. the comparison of net and absolute areas by Deng et al., 2025). R is defined for $C>0$ (for $C<0$, A^{+} and A^{-} change roles); it equals 1 for a simply supported span and 0 at a blind configuration, so a small indicator with R near 1 indicates restraint rather than cancellation. At mid-span of two equal spans, strain influence lines cancel less than deflection influence lines ($R_\varepsilon = 0.667$ against $R_w = 0.571$), but near a zero of M_q the order reverses.

A residual offset δ_0, in the units of the channel, left after re-zeroing before and after the crossing, adds $\delta_0 L_{tot}$ to the integral over a record of length L_{tot}. With $J = C\,P$ the relative bias b of the load is

$$b = \frac{P_\delta}{P}, P_\delta = \frac{\delta_0 L_{tot}}{C}. \tag{12}$$

The offset-equivalent load P_δ, at which the bias reaches 100 %, combines sensor position and baseline stability into one number, to be compared with the lightest vehicle to be screened.

2.4. Multi-channel estimation and sensor placement

Let channel j give the integral $J_j = C_j P + \delta_{0,j} L_{tot} + n_j$, with white noise n_j and offsets that may be correlated between channels, and let Σ be the covariance matrix of J. A linear estimator $\hat{P} = a^\top J$ is unbiased for every axle configuration if and only if $a^\top C = 1$, and minimizing its variance gives the GLS weights

$$a^\star = \frac{\Sigma^{-1} C}{C^\top \Sigma^{-1} C}, \; Var\,\hat{P}^\star = \left(C^\top \Sigma^{-1} C\right)^{-1}, \tag{13}$$

the Gauss–Markov best linear unbiased estimator. A non-uniform weighting function along one record cannot do better, because only uniform weighting keeps the estimate independent of the axle configuration for every structure (Supplementary Section S3). Adding the constraint $\sum_j a_j = 0$ within each channel type cancels any disturbance shared by the channels, such as an offset, a drift or motion of the reference frame. With equal statistics in all channels, the variance of this zero-sum estimator is

$$Var\,\hat{P}_{zs} = \frac{\sigma^2 \Delta x\, L_{tot} + (1-\rho)\,\delta_0^2 L_{tot}^2}{\sum_j \left(C_j - \dot{C}\right)^2}, \tag{14}$$

with σ the standard deviation of the white noise, Δx the sampling interval and ρ the common-mode fraction of the offset (Supplementary Section S4).

If the noise statistics do not depend on position, $1/Var$ is a convex quadratic in the constants $C(x_j)$ for both Eqs. (13) and (14), and the feasible constants form a box bounded by the smallest and largest $C(x)$ along the girder. A convex function on a box is maximal at a vertex, as in extreme-point optimal design (Elfving, 1952), so optimal sensors lie at the maximum and the minimum of $C(x)$: of $w_q(x)/q_0$ for deflection, with w_q the uniform-load deflection, and of $c\,M_q(x)/(E\,I\,q_0)$ for strain, whose extremes on a haunched girder differ from those of M_q. With independent offsets every sensor should sit near the extreme of largest $|C|$; with correlated offsets one should sit at the minimum, because a common offset cancels in the difference. A brute-force search found no better design, and a Monte Carlo study confirmed Eqs. (13) and (14) to within 0.6 % (Supplementary Section S4). The zero-sum estimator helps only if the disturbance is common-mode during the crossings themselves, not merely in vehicle-free periods, and Section 4.3 shows that real records can violate this.

2.5. Identifiability of the constant under boundary uncertainty

A girder with monolithic piers has the stiffness matrix $\alpha K_g + k K_p$, where K_g and K_p are its girder and pier parts, α is the ratio of effective to design girder rigidity and k is the rotational stiffness of each pier. Every static response therefore has the form $f(\kappa)/\alpha$, where $\kappa = k/\alpha$ is the scaled pier stiffness. Only the ratio of two static readings, which is independent of α, informs κ. Identifiability is meant here in the sense of Katafygiotis and Beck (1998), and the Fisher-information criteria used for sensor placement (Udwadia, 1994; Papadimitriou, 2004) are applied in Section 5.3 to the single scalar C. For a mirror-symmetric girder with equal piers, the uniform load excites only the antisymmetric pattern of pier rotations, and the Sherman–Morrison formula gives (Supplementary Section S5)

$$C_m(\alpha, \kappa) = \frac{1}{\alpha}\left[C_\infty + \frac{C_0 - C_\infty}{1 + \kappa / k_g}\right]. \tag{15}$$

C_0 and C_∞ are the constants for pinned and for fixed piers at $\alpha = 1$, and k_g is the girder's own stiffness against antisymmetric pier rotation. Equation (15) is called the Möbius law. The ratio C_∞ / C_0 is the full change that pier fixity can produce at a gauge, and the boundary sensitivity $B_m = \left|\partial \ln C_m / \partial \ln \kappa\right)$ is the local slope of the Möbius curve $C_m(\kappa)$.

For a symmetric prismatic three-span beam with rotational springs k at the piers, the slope-deflection method gives, with $\hat{k}$ the pier stiffness relative to the side-span rigidity,

$$\mu(\hat{k}) = 1 + \frac{\beta(2\beta^2 - 3)}{3\beta + 2\gamma + \beta\hat{k}}, \hat{k} = \frac{k L_{side}}{E I_{side}}. \tag{16}$$

Equation (16) replaces $\mu_{3\,span}$ in Eq. (5). In the main span the end-moment parameter becomes $\acute{M}_{main} = 2(\beta^3 \hat{k} + 3\beta^3 + 3\gamma) / [3\beta^2(\beta\hat{k} + 3\beta + 2\gamma))$, which reduces to μ/β^2 for pinned piers. For $\beta = 90/55 = 1.636$, the span ratio of the bridge in Section 5, the side-span indicator at $\xi = 0.4$ rises from 0.287 with pinned piers to 1.037 with fixed piers, while the mid main-span indicator falls from 0.755 to 0.500. Rotational restraint thus moves the side-span gauge away from blindness but makes its constant strongly dependent on k.

3. Laboratory verification

A static test on a two-span beam checks the model and the algorithm, not performance under moving traffic. A steel hollow square tube, 25 mm × 25 mm × 2.03 mm ($I = 16\,530$ mm⁴,

$E = 200$ GPa), formed two equal spans of 2500 mm, giving $C_m = L^4/(192\,E\,I) = 61.54$ mm²/N at mid-span of the first span (L the span length). Deflection there was measured with 0.005 mm resolution while calibrated weights of International Organization of Legal Metrology (OIML) class M1 were suspended at 250 mm steps: a single 40.64 N reference load, two loads 250 mm apart, and three loads. The order of the three loads was not recorded; the order used fits the record best (root-mean-square residual 0.030 mm against 0.55 mm for the reversed order), so the three-load result is not a fully independent test.

The analytical influence line matched the single-load record within 0.0126 mm, 0.44 % of the peak. With the trapezoidal rule, BPM overestimated the weighed totals of 66.99 N and 125.08 N by 1.10 % and 1.19 %, and SLM by 0.61 % and 0.70 % (Supplementary Table S3). The BPM-to-SLM ratio equals 1.0049, the ratio of the measured reference integral to its exact value: SLM absorbs the calibration error of the reference record, whereas BPM does not. The SLM deviations match the growth of the measured-to-analytical integral ratio (1.010, 1.016 and 1.017 for one, two and three loads), which the data cannot assign to either support seating or the stated masses. The test supports the invariance of Eq. (2) only indirectly, and the predicted blind configuration (spans of 2500 mm and 3644 mm) was not tested.

4. Verification on public moving-truck records

Public records test the assumptions of the identity and the noise model of Section 2.4, with 95 % confidence intervals (CIs); further tables are in Supplementary Section S7.

4.1. Data and processing

The Nothing-on-Road BWIM (NOR-BWIM) dataset (Moghadam and Sarlo, 2024) contains strain records of the Virginia Smart Road Bridge (Moghadam, 2022; Moghadam et al., 2022, 2023a, 2023b), a post-tensioned concrete box girder continuous over five spans of 86.5 + 3 × 144 + 86.5 m = 605 m, from transducers on the top-slab soffit near mid-span of span 2. Day 1 has 12 channels (“ch”), four of them without axle spikes; day 2 has four channels in one line under the wheel path (“st”, for example st36 and st40). On day 1, two 3-axle trucks with driver-reported gross weights ran in the instrumented lane (Moghadam, 2022). On day 2, a 3-axle truck of 26.8 t and a 5-axle truck of 25.9 t, weighed on a static scale (Moghadam, 2022), ran in the instrumented lane (lane A), in the other lane (lane B), and in two runs one behind the other. The weights vary by only a few percent within each day. Each record was re-zeroed with a linear baseline fitted to vehicle-free segments before and after the crossing, integrated

over the whole crossing and converted to $\int \varepsilon \, dx$ with the speed from the axle spikes (Fig. 4); the noise of the integral came from vehicle-free windows of crossing length.

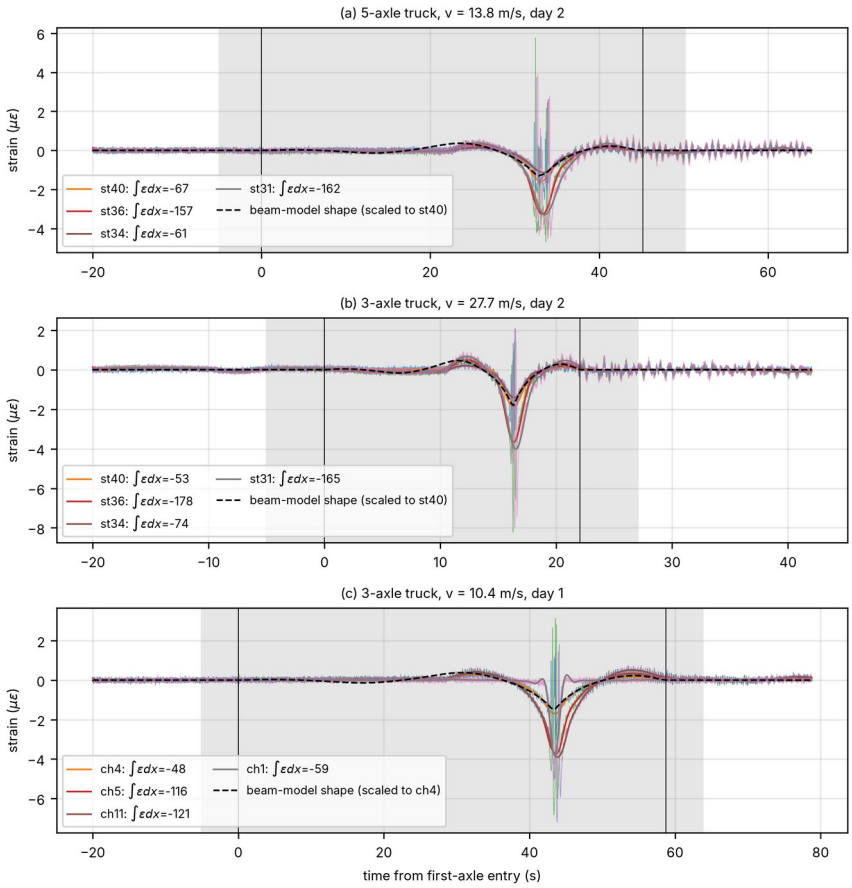


Figure 4. NOR-BWIM strain records of three single-truck crossings of the five-span girder. Shaded: integration window; dashed: beam-model shape; legend: integral $\int \varepsilon \, dx$ (με m) per gauge.

4.2. Invariance, lanes and gauges

Invariance between trucks can be shown only within margins of 10–27 %. On day 1, the χ^2 test does not reject consistency with the measured noise for eight of the 12 gauges, but only ch11 shows equal constants for both trucks within ±10 % (Fig. 5a); with 12 tests at the 5 % level, one gauge passing this ±10 % check is about what chance alone would produce. The four gauges without axle spikes give constants 22–26 % lower for the second truck (CIs exclude 1), but speed and truck are almost perfectly confounded on day 1 (correlation 0.98), so wheel path, local deck action or speed may cause this. On day 2, the ratio of the gauge-average constants of the 5-axle and the 3-axle truck is 0.98 (95 % CI 0.70–1.37; Fig. 5b): consistent with Eq. (2), but with eight runs it cannot exclude differences of up to about 27 % (90 % CI 0.76–1.27, used for the equivalence test), so it is a coarse check of linearity and processing. A speed effect was neither resolved nor excluded (Supplementary Fig. S9).

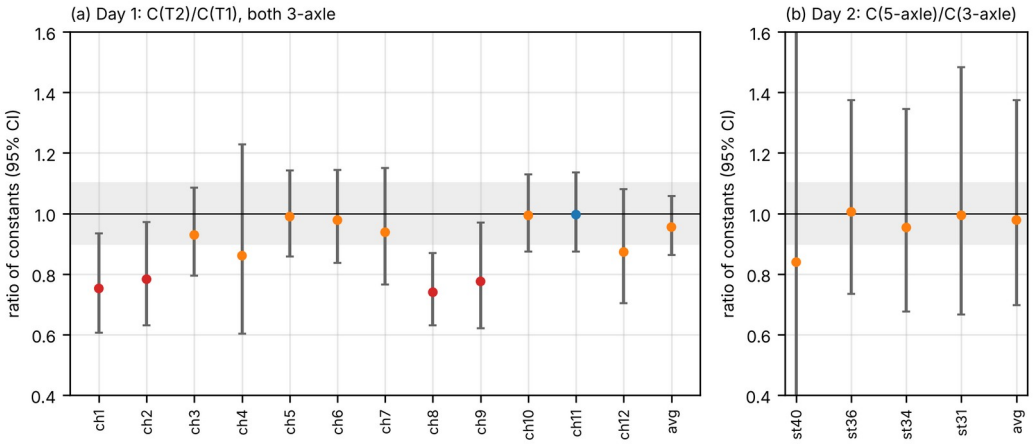


Figure 5. Ratio of the integral constants of two trucks, per gauge and gauge average, with 95 % confidence intervals: (a) day 1, second to first 3-axle truck, gauge average over the four wheel-path gauges; (b) day 2, 5-axle to 3-axle truck. Gray band: ±10 %. Red: invariance rejected; blue: equivalent within ±10 %; orange: inconclusive.

Each lane needs its own constant. For the gauge average, return trips in lane B gave constants 0.79 times those of lane A (95 % CI 0.59–1.00), as on another continuous girder (Wu et al., 2020); lane-B speeds came from the lag between gauges, so this ratio also contains any difference between the two speed estimates. The lane effect is clearly resolved for one gauge only (st36: 0.64, 95 % CI 0.47–0.81). For the gauge average, the two runs with the trucks one behind the other gave 0.92 of the summed single-truck predictions (pooled 95 % CI 0.77–1.06), consistent with superposition although both runs fall below the prediction.

Each deck gauge also needs its own constant. The constant of ch11 is 3.9 times that of ch8, although the gauges are within 6 m of each other and a one-dimensional beam model predicts nearly equal constants. The st36-to-st40 ratio also changes with the lane, by about 2.5 standard errors. Both observations make a spread of gauge factors an unlikely cause of the differences between gauges. The deck-soffit gauges also respond to slab bending and shear lag, so the constant must come from a weighed vehicle or a three-dimensional model. A beam model still reproduces the global shape of the strain histories (r^2 = 0.79–0.94) and confirms two points of Section 2: the gauges are not blind, since the zeros of the uniform-load moment diagram in span 2 lie about 35 m away, and the whole 605 m crossing must be integrated, since span 2 contributes about 170 % of the net integral and the adjacent spans −26 % and −66 %.

4.3. Noise model and multi-channel estimators

Single gauges, the gauge average, GLS (Eq. (13)) and the zero-sum estimator (Eq. (14)) were compared by leave-one-run-out cross-validation, with Σ estimated from vehicle-free windows only (Table 2; further estimators and leave-one-truck-out results in Supplementary Table S7 and Fig. S10).

Table 2. Mean absolute error (MAE) of the gross weight (% of gross vehicle weight), leave-one-run-out, with 95 % bootstrap CIs over the test runs (8 on day 2, 7 on day 1). GLS uses Σ measured in vehicle-free windows.

Estimator	Day 2, 4 gauges	Day 1, 12 gauges
Gauge average	11.9 (6.0–18.6)	5.3 (2.5–7.8)
GLS, measured Σ	20.4 (12.3–28.8)	5.8 (3.5–8.1)
Best single gauge (chosen after the fact)	8.4 (2.9–15.3)	4.8 (1.8–7.9)
Mean-weight predictor (mean of the calibration runs)	2.0 (1.9–2.0)	2.2 (1.1–3.5)

On day 2, GLS was worse than the gauge average, 20.4 % against 11.9 % MAE, with a paired difference of +8.5 percentage points (95 % CI +2.3 to +15.1); the zero-sum estimator (20.3 %) was worse as well. On day 1 the estimators cannot be told apart. Because the reference weights hardly vary, a predictor that always returns the mean calibration weight is better than every estimator on both days, and the records cannot show weight discrimination.

The failure of GLS is itself a finding. The vehicle-free noise of the four day-2 channels is strongly common-mode, but the crossing residuals (deviations of each crossing's integral from its calibrated value) are much less correlated between gauges: 0.63 against 0.90 for vehicle-free noise at the same window length. The vehicle-free covariance therefore predicted GLS to beat the average, whereas the residual covariance predicts the observed reverse order (Supplementary Section S7). The gauge-specific component of each crossing, plausibly from the wheel path and local slab action, is amplified by the large GLS weights of opposite sign on st40 and st36, and estimating Σ from the residuals over-fits with only eight runs. Σ, and hence ρ, should be estimated from the residuals of enough calibration crossings, not from vehicle-free windows alone.

5. Design case: an in-service three-span box girder

5.1. Bridge, data and model

The Mây Bridge crosses the Kinh Môn River in Hải Dương, Viet Nam. Its main bridge is a 55 + 90 + 55 m continuous prestressed concrete box girder built by balanced cantilever ($\beta = 1.636$), 2.40 m deep at mid-span and 5.40 m at the piers. The inner piers, including T7, are monolithic with the girder; the end supports T5 and T8 carry pot bearings. In the June 2020 acceptance test, 3-axle trucks with a mean weighed gross weight of 25.06 t stood in the side and main spans, and dial gauges read the peak deflection at N8, in the side span at $0.4\,L$ (22 m) from T8, and at N7, mid main span. Each section has six readings (three points across, central and eccentric arrangements), with means of 5.55 mm at N8 and 15.43 mm at N7 (Supplementary Tables S10, S11 and S13).

The Euler–Bernoulli model has a parabolic depth variation over $L_v = 44$ m from each inner pier, a second moment proportional to $h^{2.943}$, where h is the girder depth, and a rotational spring k at each inner pier; other haunch lengths and exponents and a rigid pier zone were tested as model-form variants (Supplementary Section S8). Calibration A, the design model, has $\alpha = 1$ and $k = 2.75 \times 10^7$ kN m/rad fitted to the designer's FE output and deviates from the measurements by +2.4 % at N8 and +12.3 % at N7. Calibration B, the joint least-squares fit, has $\alpha = 0.716$ and $k = 1.2 \times 10^8$ kN m/rad, with misfits of −2.8 % and +2.9 %. A lies at $\kappa = 2.75 \times 10^7$ kN m/rad and B at $\kappa = 1.68 \times 10^8$ kN m/rad. Figure 6 shows the indicators along the girder.

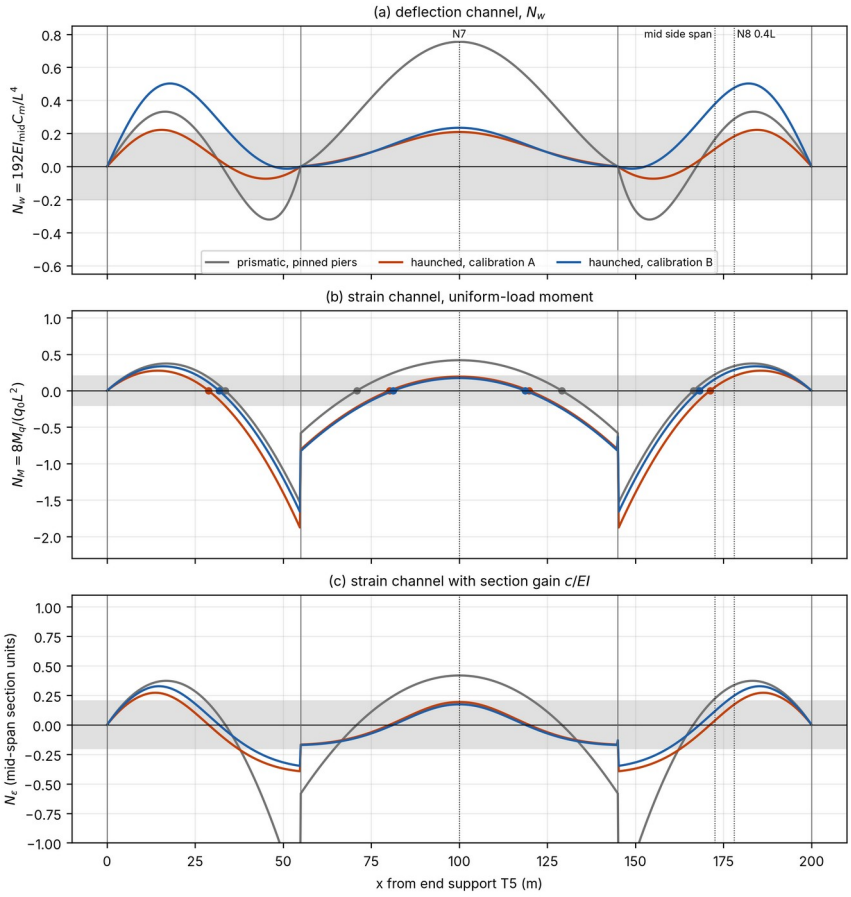


Figure 6. Mây Bridge girder: indicators for a prismatic model with pinned piers and for the haunched model under calibrations A and B: (a) deflection N_w; (b) strain N_M; (c) strain indicator including the gain c/EI, with $c \propto h$. Dots in (b): strain blind points (zeros of the uniform-load moment). Dotted lines: gauges N7 and N8 ($0.4L$) and the mid side-span position.

5.2. What the static data identify

Because of a model-form misfit and the Möbius law of Eq. (15), the static data leave the constant of the side-span gauge N8 uncertain by a factor of 6.6 at the tolerance defined below, whereas that of the main-span gauge N7 is bounded within a factor of 1.5.

The misfit ratio r_{87}, the measured-to-model ratio at N8 divided by that at N7, would equal 1 if one model fitted both gauges. Its minimum, 1.058, lies at calibration B (Fig. 7a), and the model-form variants move the minimum between 1.039 and 1.092 but never to 1. The 4–9 % residual is therefore model-form error, calibration B is the nearest fit rather than an exact one, and its $\alpha = 0.716$ would mean a 28 % loss of rigidity in a recently built prestressed girder.

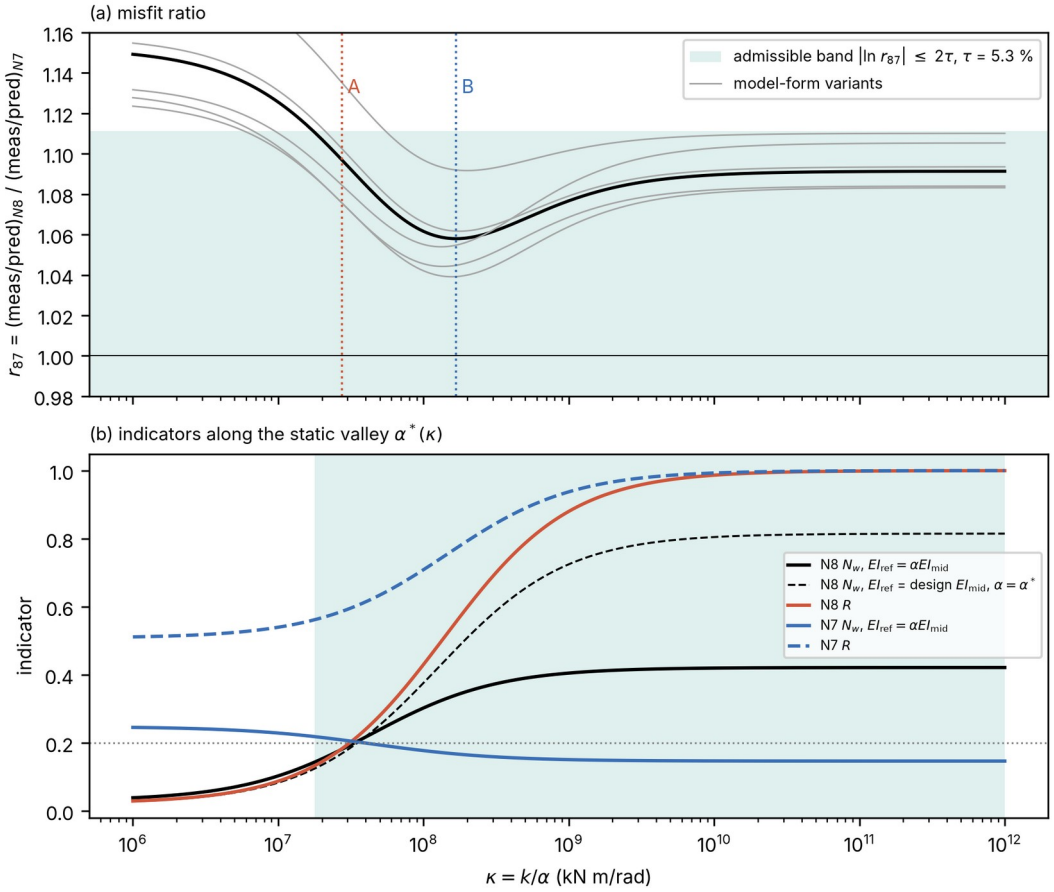


Figure 7. Identifiability of the Mây Bridge pier stiffness: (a) misfit ratio r_{87} against $\kappa = k/\alpha$, with model-form variants (gray: haunch length L_v, haunch exponent, rigid pier zone) and admissible band $|\ln r_{87}| \le 2\tau$ implied by a misfit within τ = 5.3 % at each gauge; (b) N8 and N7 indicators and cancellation ratios along the best static fit $\alpha^{\dagger}(\kappa)$; shaded: admissible range of κ.

The admissible set contains every model whose misfit at each gauge stays within a tolerance τ. The six readings of each section have a standard deviation of 4.7–5.0 % about their mean, so the standard error of the mean is 1.9–2.0 %; this scatter comes from the transverse positions, not from repeatability, because the readings are not replicates. Combined in quadrature with a model-form standard uncertainty of 1.75 %, it gives 2.64 % for each section mean, using the pooled standard error, and $\tau = 5.3$ % at two standard deviations. At this tolerance the data bound κ only from below: every $\kappa \ge 1.8 \times 10^{7}$ kN m/rad is admissible, with α between 0.51 and 1.15. At $\tau = 3$ % the admissible set shrinks and excludes the design rigidity, $\alpha = 1$ (Supplementary Table S12).

Over the admissible set, C_8 ranges from 3.0×10^{-5} to 2.0×10^{-4} m²/kN (the upper end requires $\alpha \approx 0.5$; Table 3, note b), whereas C_7 stays within 3.3–5.0×10^{-4} m²/kN; the N8 indicator spans 0.124–0.822 against 0.190–0.286 for N7 (Table 3). In the base model, going from pinned to fixed piers multiplies the N8 constant by 14.0 but reduces the N7 constant to 0.59 of

its pinned value, and the design stiffness sits at $\kappa/k_g = 0.63$, near the steepest part of the Möbius curve, where B_m is 0.51 at N8 and 0.12 at N7. Calibrating to the N8 reading does not fix the N8 constant either: the ratio of C_m to the modeled N8 deflection varies by a factor of 6.5 over the admissible set, against 1.5 for N7.

Table 3. Deflection indicator N_w, Eq. (10), and cancellation ratio R, Eq. (11), of the installed Mây Bridge gauges; EI_{ref} = design EI_{mid} (mid main span), L = span containing the gauge. $\alpha = 1$ except for calibration B ($\alpha = 0.716$) and the admissible set (τ = 5.3 %, α = 0.51–1.15); haunched pinned-pier and fixed-pier rows give the extremes over the haunch-length variants (L_v = 40–45 m). Values at mid side span: Supplementary Table S14. –: not computed.

Model	N_w, N8 at $0.4L$	N_w, N7	R, N8 at $0.4L$	R, N7
Prismatic beam, pinned piers	0.287	0.755	0.14	0.70
Haunched, calibration A	0.181	0.209	0.18	0.59
Haunched, calibration B	0.476[a]	0.234	0.56	0.77
Haunched, admissible set	0.124–0.822[b]	0.190–0.286	0.13–1.00	0.56–1.00
Haunched, pinned piers	0.023	0.263	–	–
Haunched, fixed piers	0.446	0.145	–	–

[a] Normalized by the effective rigidity αEI_{mid}: 0.341. [b] The upper part requires $\alpha \approx 0.5$; normalized by the effective rigidity: 0.144–0.422.

The main-span indicator is low (0.19–0.29) although R is 0.56–1.00, so its smallness reflects restraint by the haunches, not cancellation.

5.3. Which channel, where

For this girder the deflection channel at mid main span is the robust choice. A side-span deflection gauge is ill-conditioned with respect to pier stiffness and should not take its constant from a design model unless that stiffness is identified.

Strain channels behave differently (Fig. 6). The haunches move every zero-moment point toward mid-span. The side-span zero lies 26.0–33.3 m from the end support, so a strain gauge at mid side span would be practically blind under calibration A ($N_M = 0.048$). Mid main span lies in or at the edge of the near-blind band in every haunched model (N_M = 0.163–0.212 at N7), again because of restraint (R_ε = 0.65–1.00). By N_M alone the best strain locations in all haunched models are 5–10 m from the piers ($|N_M| \geq 0.39$), but with $c \propto h$ their gain c/EI is about one quarter to one third of that at mid-span, and one fifth at the pier face (Fig. 6c), so

the placement rule, which ranks by $C_\varepsilon = c\,M_q / (E\,I\,q_0)$, disagrees with the ranking by N_M. Which ranking governs depends on whether the strain resolution or the offset sets the noise. Load cells under the end bearings ($N_F = \xi_0$ = 0.47–0.61) cannot be blind unless the side span loses its sagging zone.

The placement rule puts a second deflection sensor at the most negative constant, in the side span 4–10 m from the inner pier; the pair at 100 m and 152 m from T5 is within 0.9 % in variance of the calibration-specific optimum under both A and B, so placement is insensitive to the unresolved pier stiffness. Under the assumed noise model ($\sigma = 0.01$ mm, $\delta_0 = 0.1$ mm, a 220 m record including a 20 m convoy allowance, $\rho = 0.9$, calibration A), the standard deviation of the load falls from 24.8 % with N7 alone to 10.6 % with the pair and the zero-sum estimator; this gain is an upper bound, because such common-mode behavior need not hold during crossings (Section 4.3).

If a model-based constant is wanted, a tiltmeter on the monolithic pier T7 is the most informative additional measurement; under the four trucks of the side-span test load it would read about 167 µrad. At the design pier stiffness ($\kappa = 2.75 \times 10^7$ kN m/rad, with α refitted to $\alpha' = 1.07$; Fig. 7b), with 2.64 % standard uncertainty per reading and an assumed 3 % for the rotation, the Cramér–Rao bound on the standard deviation of $\ln C_8$ is 0.87 from the two deflections and 0.18 with the tiltmeter. The first and third vertical frequencies would give 0.24 instead, but only if the first frequency were identified, and the test reports one frequency per span (Supplementary Table S13). At calibration B the two-reading Fisher matrix is singular; with the tiltmeter the bound is 0.04.

A moving-load test with weighed trucks has been designed for this bridge but not performed. Table 4 gives the predicted values that would decide between the calibrations; the ratio of integrals at the side-span and main-span gauges is independent of truck weight and absolute rigidity, and it differs by a factor of 2.3 between A and B.

Table 4. Predicted discriminating measurements at the Mây Bridge for a 25 t 3-axle truck (predictions, not measured).

Measured quantity	Calibration A	Calibration B
Integral ratio, N8 at $0.4L$ / N7 at mid-span	0.121	0.284
Peak girder rotation over pier T7 (µrad)	−58	−29
Strain integral at the zero-moment point of A (171.3 m) / at N7	0.006	0.17

6. Design implications and limitations

For design before installation (checklist in Supplementary Section S10), one static analysis under a uniform unit load on each lane gives the constant of every candidate channel. Strain gauges should stay out of the near-blind band $|N_M|<0.2$ around every zero-moment point, including gauges set back from a pier, and deflection gauges out of the bands of Table 1. Equation (15) gives the constant over the plausible range of pier stiffness; locations with large C_∞/C_0 or B_m should be avoided, or a measurement that identifies κ should be planned (a pier tiltmeter, an identified first frequency or an integral ratio between two gauges). For position-independent noise, sensors belong at the extremes of $C(x)$. SLM with weighed vehicles of clearly different weights and lane-specific constants is preferred; GLS or zero-sum weights need Σ from calibration-crossing residuals, checked out of sample.

The residual offset limits single-channel accuracy on long spans. Over the Mây Bridge admissible set, with $L_{tot}=200$ m, $\delta_0=0.1$ mm biases a 25 t truck by 16–25 % at a single main-span gauge and by 41–271 % at a single side-span gauge (Supplementary Table S15). With present absolute-deflection technology, single-point influence-area weighing on a long-span girder is therefore marginal even at the best location, and non-contact techniques must establish their residual offset on site, because environmental effects act over the same window (Sohn, 2007; Cross et al., 2013). Speed enters through the response and its measurement: on lane A of the field records, speeds from a low-pass fit were 1.139 times those from the axle spikes (standard deviation 0.124, 22 runs), so the speed estimator alone can shift the weight by more than 10 %. The quasi-static error for a constant force crossing the laboratory beam is at most about 1 % when $t_{cr}/T_1\geq 8$ (crossing time over fundamental period; Frýba, 1999); the bound omits vehicle–bridge interaction and road roughness (Supplementary Sections S9 and S10). The method is therefore proposed for preliminary overload screening. Its threshold should be set with a margin below the legal limit and the design live loads (CEN, 2003; AASHTO, 2024), and flagged vehicles should be weighed by influence-line BWIM, which does not suffer the blindness of Table 1 because it fits the whole record shape.

Several limitations remain. The laboratory beam had equal spans and statically positioned loads, and the blind configuration was not tested. The field data come from one public dataset with four trucks, nearly constant reference weights, no deflection channel and no gauge at a zero-moment point, so weight discrimination, the strain and deflection blind loci and a deflection pair could not be tested, and a screening threshold still needs field calibration with

trucks of clearly different weights, which this study did not have. The in-service analysis uses static data and a beam model with an assumed depth law and equal pier springs, and its moving-load test is designed but not performed. The treatment is one-dimensional along each lane.

7. Conclusions

1. Strain channels are blind at every zero of the uniform-load moment diagram, which every continuous girder has, and nearly blind 0.19–0.32 of the span from the interior support on two equal spans. Deflection channels are blind only near particular span ratios, such as $\lambda = (3+\sqrt{33})/6$ for a mid-span gauge on two spans of equal rigidity and $\beta = 1.7006$ for a mid side-span gauge on three symmetric spans.

2. The indicator N_M and the cancellation ratio R need no reference rigidity, and R separates cancellation from restraint. For position-independent noise, optimal sensors lie at the extremes of the uniform-load response, for strain at the extremes of $c\,M_q/E\,I$.

3. For a symmetric girder with equal piers, the constant is a linear-fractional (Möbius) function of the scaled pier stiffness. On a 55 + 90 + 55 m box girder, two static readings leave the constant of the side-span deflection gauge uncertain by a factor of 6.6 at a two-standard-deviation tolerance, whereas the main-span constant is bounded within a factor of 1.5; at the design pier stiffness a pier tiltmeter would reduce the Cramér–Rao bound on the standard deviation of $\ln C_8$ from 0.87 to 0.18.

4. On public moving-truck records, the gauge-average constants were consistent with invariance and superposition within the 10–27 % that the noise resolves, although four day-1 gauges without axle spikes differed by 22–26 % between trucks, with speed confounded; each lane and deck gauge needed its own constant. On one day, GLS weights from vehicle-free noise were worse out of sample than the gauge average (20.4 % against 11.9 %), consistent with the much lower correlation of crossing residuals between gauges (0.63 against 0.90).

5. On the 55 + 90 + 55 m box girder, with a 200 m record, a residual offset of 0.1 mm would bias a 25 t truck by 16–25 % even at mid main span.

The next steps are the moving-load test designed for the in-service girder, laboratory tests of the blind configuration, and field calibration with trucks of clearly different weights.

Acknowledgements

The authors gratefully acknowledge the Laboratory of Transportation Technology and Systems, Faculty of Bridge and Road Engineering, Hanoi University of Civil Engineering, for providing the test facilities used in this study, and A. Moghadam and R. Sarlo for making the NOR-BWIM dataset publicly available. They also thank the Hải Dương provincial project management unit and Công ty TNHH Tư vấn Đại học Xây dựng (HUCE consultancy) for permission to use the acceptance-test data of the Mây Bridge.

During the preparation of this work the authors used Claude (Anthropic) to assist with code development and debugging and with language editing. All scientific formulations, procedures, numerical results and interpretations were independently reviewed and verified by the authors, who take full responsibility for the content of the manuscript.

Author contributions

Quoc-Bao Nguyen: Conceptualization, Methodology, Investigation, Data curation, Formal analysis, Software, Writing – original draft. Thai-Son Vu: Conceptualization, Investigation, Validation, Supervision, Project administration, Writing – review & editing.

Statements and Declarations

Ethical considerations

Not applicable.

Consent to participate

Not applicable.

Consent for publication

Not applicable.

Declaration of conflicting interest

The Mây Bridge load test analyzed in Section 5 was performed by an author of this paper (Q.-B. Nguyen) as part of inspection work carried out by Công ty TNHH Tư vấn Đại học Xây

dựng (HUCE consultancy). The authors declare that there is no other conflict of interest regarding the publication of this article.

Funding

This research did not receive any specific grant from funding agencies in the public, commercial or not-for-profit sectors. The work was carried out as part of the authors' employment at Hanoi University of Civil Engineering.

Data availability

The field strain records analyzed in Section 4 are publicly available in the NOR-BWIM dataset (figshare, https://doi.org/10.7294/26880898.v1, CC0; Moghadam and Sarlo, 2024). The Mây Bridge load test was performed by an author of this paper, and the authors are permitted to publish the processed data. The laboratory and Mây Bridge data, the analysis scripts with the console output of each run, and the derived data behind every figure and table are provided as Supplementary Material.

References

AASHTO (2024) LRFD Bridge Design Specifications. 10th ed. Washington, DC: American Association of State Highway and Transportation Officials.

Agüero-Barrantes P, Christenson RE and Lobo-Aguilar S (2023) Utilizing Kriging metamodeling to provide practical and effective bridge weigh-in-motion. Journal of Bridge Engineering 28(2): 04022138. DOI: 10.1061/JBENF2.BEENG-5760.

Agüero-Barrantes P, Lobo Aguilar S and Christenson RE (2021) Sparse sensing bridge weigh-in-motion for single-span bridges. Métodos y Materiales 11: 43–53. DOI: 10.15517/mym.v11i0.46400.

Al-Qadi I, Wang H, Ouyang Y, Grimmelsman K and Purdy JE (2016) LTBP Program's Literature Review on Weigh-in-Motion Systems. Report FHWA-HRT-16-024, Federal Highway Administration, Washington, DC. https://rosap.ntl.bts.gov/view/dot/35735.

Cardini AJ and DeWolf JT (2009) Implementation of a long-term bridge weigh-in-motion system for a steel girder bridge in the interstate highway system. Journal of Bridge Engineering 14(6): 418–423. DOI: 10.1061/(ASCE)1084-0702(2009)14:6(418).

CEN (2003) EN 1991-2:2003, Eurocode 1: Actions on Structures – Part 2: Traffic Loads on Bridges. Brussels: CEN.

Chan THT, Law SS, Yung TH and Yuan XR (1999) An interpretive method for moving force identification. Journal of Sound and Vibration 219(3): 503–524. DOI: 10.1006/jsvi.1998.1904.

Chaudhary MTA, Morgese M, Taylor TW and Ansari F (2025) Method and application for influence-line-free distributed detection of gross vehicle weights in bridges. Structures 73: 108298. DOI: 10.1016/j.istruc.2025.108298.

Cross EJ, Koo KY, Brownjohn JMW and Worden K (2013) Long-term monitoring and data analysis of the Tamar Bridge. Mechanical Systems and Signal Processing 35(1–2): 16–34. DOI: 10.1016/j.ymssp.2012.08.026.

Deng L, Liu P, Huang T and Kaewunruen S (2025) A novel moving load identification method for continuous rigid-frame bridges using a field-based displacement influence line. Applied Sciences 15(11): 6028. DOI: 10.3390/app15116028.

Elfving G (1952) Optimum allocation in linear regression theory. Annals of Mathematical Statistics 23(2): 255–262. DOI: 10.1214/aoms/1177729442.

Fan Y, Zhu J, Pei J, Li Z and Wu Y (2015) Analysis for Yangmingtan Bridge collapse. Engineering Failure Analysis 56: 20–27. DOI: 10.1016/j.engfailanal.2015.05.003.

Frýba L (1999) Vibration of Solids and Structures under Moving Loads. 3rd ed. London: Thomas Telford.

Ghali A, Neville AM and Brown TG (2017) Structural Analysis: A Unified Classical and Matrix Approach. Boca Raton: CRC Press. DOI: 10.1201/9781315273006.

Hao T, Xie Z and Yu M (2019) The identification technology of vehicle weight based on bridge strain time-history curve. Advances in Structural Engineering 22(7): 1606–1616. DOI: 10.1177/1369433218823487.

Helmi K, Bakht B and Mufti A (2014) Accurate measurements of gross vehicle weight through bridge weigh-in-motion: a case study. Journal of Civil Structural Health Monitoring 4(3): 195–208. DOI: 10.1007/s13349-014-0076-5.

570 Jacob B, OBrien EJ and Jehaes S (eds) (2002) Weigh-in-Motion of Road Vehicles: Final
571 Report of the COST 323 Action. Paris: LCPC.

572 Katafygiotis LS and Beck JL (1998) Updating models and their uncertainties. II: Model
573 identifiability. Journal of Engineering Mechanics 124(4): 463–467. DOI:
574 10.1061/(ASCE)0733-9399(1998)124:4(463).

575 Law SS and Zhu XQ (2000) Study on different beam models in moving force identification.
576 Journal of Sound and Vibration 234(4): 661–679. DOI: 10.1006/jsvi.2000.2867.

577 Law SS, Chan THT and Zeng QH (1997) Moving force identification: a time domain method.
578 Journal of Sound and Vibration 201(1): 1–22. DOI: 10.1006/jsvi.1996.0774.

579 Lin SW, Du YL, Yi TH and Yang DH (2023) Influence lines-based model updating of
580 suspension bridges considering boundary conditions. Advances in Structural Engineering
581 26(2): 316–328. DOI: 10.1177/13694332221126374.

582 Lobo Aguilar S and Christenson RE (2018) A simplified shear-strain based bridge weigh-in-
583 motion method for in-service highway bridges. Métodos y Materiales 8: 11–22. DOI:
584 10.15517/mym.v8i1.34551.

585 Moghadam A (2022) Integration of Traffic and Structural Health Monitoring Systems Using a
586 Novel Nothing-On-Road (NOR) Bridge-Weigh-In-Motion (BWIM) System. PhD
587 dissertation, Virginia Polytechnic Institute and State University, Blacksburg, VA.
588 http://hdl.handle.net/10919/111390.

589 Moghadam A and Sarlo R (2024) Nothing-on-Road Bridge-Weigh-In-Motion (NOR-BWIM)
590 Dataset, version 1. University Libraries, Virginia Tech, figshare. DOI:
591 10.7294/26880898.v1.

592 Moghadam A, AlHamaydeh M and Sarlo R (2022) Bridge-weigh-in-motion approach for
593 simultaneous multiple vehicles on concrete-box-girder bridges. Automation in
594 Construction 137: 104179. DOI: 10.1016/j.autcon.2022.104179.

595 Moghadam A, AlHamaydeh M and Sarlo R (2023a) Nothing-on-road bridge-weigh-in-motion
596 used for long-span, concrete-box-girder bridges: an experimental case study. Journal of
597 Structural Integrity and Maintenance 8(2): 79–90. DOI:
598 10.1080/24705314.2023.2165606.

599 Moghadam A, AlHamaydeh M and Sarlo R (2023b) Dual-purpose procedure for bridge health
600 monitoring and weigh-in-motion used for multiple-vehicle events. Automation in
601 Construction 148: 104768. DOI: 10.1016/j.autcon.2023.104768.

602 Moses F (1979) Weigh-in-motion system using instrumented bridges. Transportation
603 Engineering Journal of ASCE 105(3): 233–249. DOI: 10.1061/TPEJAN.0000783.

604 Nguyen QB, Hoang T and Nguyen HS (2024) [Determination of the load applied on a simply
605 supported beam based on measured deflection data]. Journal of Science and Technology
606 in Civil Engineering (HUCE) 18(2V): 61–71 (in Vietnamese). DOI:
607 10.31814/stce.huce2024-18(2V)-05.

608 OBrien EJ, Quilligan MJ and Karoumi R (2006) Calculating an influence line from direct
609 measurements. Proceedings of the Institution of Civil Engineers: Bridge Engineering
610 159(1): 31–34. DOI: 10.1680/bren.2006.159.1.31.

611 OBrien EJ, Rowley CW, González A and Green MF (2009) A regularised solution to the
612 bridge weigh-in-motion equations. International Journal of Heavy Vehicle Systems 16(3):
613 310–327. DOI: 10.1504/IJHVS.2009.027135.

614 Ojio T and Yamada K (2002) Bridge weigh-in-motion systems using stringers of plate girder
615 bridges. In: Proceedings of the Third International Conference on Weigh-in-Motion
616 (ICWIM3). Orlando, FL, pp. 209–218.

617 Papadimitriou C (2004) Optimal sensor placement methodology for parametric identification
618 of structural systems. Journal of Sound and Vibration 278(4–5): 923–947. DOI:
619 10.1016/j.jsv.2003.10.063.

620 Shi S, Yarnold M, Hurlebaus S and Mander J (2025) Evaluation of a load cell-based bridge
621 weigh-in-motion system. Transportation Research Record 2679(2): 535–549. DOI:
622 10.1177/03611981241263336.

623 Sohn H (2007) Effects of environmental and operational variability on structural health
624 monitoring. Philosophical Transactions of the Royal Society A 365(1851): 539–560.
625 DOI: 10.1098/rsta.2006.1935.

626 Udwadia FE (1994) Methodology for optimum sensor locations for parameter identification in
627 dynamic systems. Journal of Engineering Mechanics 120(2): 368–390. DOI:
628 10.1061/(ASCE)0733-9399(1994)120:2(368).

629 Ventura R, Barabino B and Maternini G (2024) Estimating the frequency of traffic
630 overloading on road bridges. Journal of Traffic and Transportation Engineering (English
631 Edition) 11(4): 776–796. DOI: 10.1016/j.jtte.2023.11.005.

632 Wang C, Zhang WS, Pan X, He WY and Ren WX (2026) Deflection influence line
633 identification under moving vehicle based on variational modal decomposition and B-
634 spline basis function. Advances in Structural Engineering 29(4): 779–792. DOI:
635 10.1177/13694332251363355.

636 Wu H, Zhao H, Liu J and Hu Z (2020) A filtering-based bridge weigh-in-motion system on a
637 continuous multi-girder bridge considering the influence lines of different lanes. Frontiers
638 of Structural and Civil Engineering 14(5): 1232–1246. DOI: 10.1007/s11709-020-0653-0.

639 Yan WJ, Hao TT, Yuen KV and Papadimitriou C (2022) Monitoring gross vehicle weight
640 with a probabilistic and influence line-free bridge weight-in-motion scheme based on a
641 transmissibility-like index. Mechanical Systems and Signal Processing 177: 109133.
642 DOI: 10.1016/j.ymssp.2022.109133.

643 Yang J, Hou P, Yang C and Zhang Y (2021) Study on the method of moving load
644 identification based on strain influence line. Applied Sciences 11(2): 853. DOI:
645 10.3390/app11020853.

646 Yu Y, Cai CS and Deng L (2016) State-of-the-art review on bridge weigh-in-motion
647 technology. Advances in Structural Engineering 19(9): 1514–1530. DOI:
648 10.1177/1369433216655922.

649 Yu Y, Cai CS and Deng L (2018) Nothing-on-road bridge weigh-in-motion considering the
650 transverse position of the vehicle. Structure and Infrastructure Engineering 14(8): 1108–
651 1122. DOI: 10.1080/15732479.2017.1401095.

652 Zhang J, Liu Y and Fan X (2026) An AR(1)-Tikhonov-SVD-GCV framework for stochastic
653 moving load identification driven by bridge multi-point deflection data. Structures 88:
654 111844. DOI: 10.1016/j.istruc.2026.111844.

655 Zhou C, Demartino C, Narazaki Y, Xu Y, Chatzi E and Spencer BF (2025) Optimal sensor
656 placement for bridge weigh-in-motion using an augmented Kalman filter. Mechanical
657 Systems and Signal Processing 241: 113522. DOI: 10.1016/j.ymssp.2025.113522.

Zhou Y, Feng Z, Di SK and Jia ZJ (2026) A novel approach for bending stiffness inversion and rapid evaluation of continuous beam bridges based on a deflection influence line. Structural Control and Health Monitoring 2026(1): 1361157. DOI: 10.1155/stc/1361157.

Zhu J, Wang C, Qi T and Zhou Z (2022) Vehicle load identification on orthotropic steel box beam bridge based on the strain response area. Applied Sciences 12(23): 12394. DOI: 10.3390/app122312394.

Zhu XQ and Law SS (2006) Moving load identification on multi-span continuous bridges with elastic bearings. Mechanical Systems and Signal Processing 20(7): 1759–1782. DOI: 10.1016/j.ymssp.2005.06.004.

Žnidarič A, Kalin J and Kreslin M (2018) Improved accuracy and robustness of bridge weigh-in-motion systems. Structure and Infrastructure Engineering 14(4): 412–424. DOI: 10.1080/15732479.2017.1406958.

Zuo XH, He WY and Ren WX (2019) Vehicle weight identification for a bridge with multi-T-girders based on load transverse distribution coefficient. Advances in Structural Engineering 22(16): 3435–3443. DOI: 10.1177/1369433219854548.